

1.0 NATURE, CONCEPT AND VALUES OF DEVELOPMENT

1.1 Concepts and Values of Development

Development is about improving the quality of people's lives through better education, health, income, and capacity building. It implies a positive transformation in the quality of life and the capacity of individuals and communities to live meaningful, productive, and dignified lives. Todaro and Smith (2020) define development as *“a multidimensional process involving major changes in social structures, popular attitudes, and national institutions, as well as the acceleration of economic growth, the reduction of inequality, and the eradication of absolute poverty.”* This definition emphasizes that development is not limited to economic progress but includes deep and broad transformations across society. Traditionally, development was equated with economic growth, particularly an increase in gross domestic product (GDP), but contemporary understanding of development goes beyond mere income levels to include the quality of life, education, healthcare, equity, freedom, and sustainability. Thus, development is not just about how much a country produces but how well its people live.

Development is not merely about economic growth or infrastructural expansion; it is fundamentally guided by a set of core values that shape its direction and impact. Todaro highlights three core values of development: These values provide the ethical and philosophical basis for both national and international development policies:

1. **Sustenance:** This refers to the basic requirements for survival, such as food, shelter, and healthcare which are essential for maintaining life. Development must ensure that people have access to these fundamental needs to live a secure and healthy life without compromising the future.

2. ***Self-Esteem***: self-esteem involves having a sense of worth, dignity, and self-respect. Development should promote environments where individuals feel valued and are able to participate fully in society without feeling inferior.
3. ***Freedom from Servitude***: this means having the freedom to make life choices and not being subject to conditions of oppression, exploitation, or ignorance. True development allows individuals to act independently and realize their full potential.

1.1.1 Liberal, Capitalist, and Socialist Perspectives of Development

The liberal, capitalist, and socialist offer different ideological approaches to understanding and achieving development.

Liberal perspective is grounded in the principles of individual freedom, democracy, rule of law, and market efficiency. It sees development as a process of modernization, where societies migrate from traditional to modern industrial economies. Liberals argue that the market, if left relatively free from government intervention, will allocate resources efficiently and create prosperity. In this view, the role of the state should be minimal, primarily ensuring the rule of law, protecting private property, and facilitating market operations. Development, therefore, is driven by technological progress, individual entrepreneurship, and free trade. This is practiced by United States, Canada and United Kingdom

Closely related to the liberal view is the ***capitalist perspective***, which places an even stronger emphasis on private ownership, competition, and profit-making as engines of growth and development. Capitalism views economic growth as the primary indicator of development and assumes that the benefits of growth will "trickle down" to all segments of society. According to this view, inequality is an acceptable and necessary, consequence of capitalism because it provides incentives for innovation and productivity. This is practiced by Singapore, United Arab Emirate and South Korea

In contrast, the ***socialist perspective*** presents a fundamentally different view of development. Socialism emphasizes collective ownership or strong state control over the means of production and distribution. It advocates for a planned economy where the government plays a dominant role in ensuring equitable access to resources and services. Development, in the socialist view, is not solely about economic growth but about improving the quality of life for all, especially the working class and disadvantaged populations. Socialists seek to reduce or eliminate social and economic inequality, believing that true development must be inclusive and just. While critics argue that socialism can lead to inefficiencies, its advocates maintain that it prioritizes human needs and social welfare over profit. This is practiced by Singapore. This is practiced by Cuba Vietnam and China.

1.1.2 Differences Between Change, Growth, and Development

While the terms change, growth, and development are often used interchangeably, they represent different concepts, especially in the context of socio-economic analysis.

Change refers to any alteration or transformation in the structure, function, or processes of a system, society, or organization. This change can be positive or negative, progressive or regressive, and may affect various aspects of life, including technology, culture, institutions, or the environment.

On the other hand, ***growth*** is a more specific concept, often used in quantitative terms to describe an increase in size, number, or value. In economic terms, growth typically refers to an increase in measurable indicators such as gross domestic product (GDP), national income, industrial output, or population. While growth is a crucial component of development, it does not capture the full essence of human progress. For instance, a country may experience economic growth without a corresponding improvement in the well-being of its citizens.

Development, by contrast, is a broader and more holistic concept that encompasses both qualitative and quantitative improvements in a society. Development implies a positive transformation in the quality of life and the capacity of individuals and communities to live meaningful, productive, and dignified lives. Therefore, while growth and change can be part of development, true development is more comprehensive, inclusive, and value-driven.

1.1.3 Need for Development

In today's interconnected world, the need for development has become a global concern due to persistent and emerging challenges that affect both developed and developing nations. One of the foremost reasons for this global focus is **poverty**. Despite advancements in science, technology, and industry, millions of people around the world continue to live in extreme poverty, lacking access to basic necessities such as food, clean water, shelter, healthcare, and education. This stark inequality between and within countries has prompted international calls for inclusive and sustainable development.

Another critical concern is **unemployment**, especially among the youth, which contributes to social unrest, migration pressures, and insecurity. Developing countries in particular struggle with creating adequate jobs to match the rapid growth in population. Moreover, inequality—whether economic, gender-based, or regional—remains a significant obstacle to achieving social cohesion and stability. In many societies, wealth is concentrated in the hands of a few, while a large portion of the population remains marginalized and excluded from economic opportunities.

Climate change and environmental degradation have also become urgent global issues that intersect with development. Unsustainable practices have led to rising global temperatures, sea-level rise, extreme weather events, and loss of biodiversity, which in turn threaten food security,

health, and livelihoods, particularly in vulnerable regions. Addressing these challenges requires a new model of development—one that prioritizes sustainability and resilience.

Additionally, global development is essential for promoting peace and security, as underdevelopment and poverty often breed conflict, extremism, and displacement. Countries and international organizations, therefore, have a shared responsibility to foster global stability through investments in human capital, infrastructure, and institutions.

In response to these concerns, various international frameworks and initiatives have been established, such as the United Nations Sustainable Development Goals (SDGs), which outline a 17-goal blueprint for ending poverty, protecting the planet, and ensuring prosperity for all by 2030. Other global institutions, including the World Bank, International Monetary Fund (IMF), also play key roles in financing development, shaping policy, and facilitating cooperation among nations.

1.2 Theories of Development

Theories of national development offer frameworks for understanding how countries grow economically, socially, and politically over time. These theories have evolved to explain various historical experiences and socio-economic dynamics, particularly between developed and developing countries. Below is a detailed discussion of the main theories of national development:

1.2.1 Modernization Theory: Modernization theory emerged in the post-World War II era and was popularized by scholars like Walt Rostow, who proposed the "Stages of Economic Growth." This theory posits that all societies progress through similar stages of development, moving from traditional, agrarian societies to modern, industrial ones. It emphasizes internal factors such as capital accumulation, technological advancement, education, and institutional

reform as essential drivers of development. According to this view, underdeveloped countries are seen as being at an earlier stage of development and can follow the same path taken by Western nations by adopting modern values, practices, and institutions.

1.2.2 Dependency Theory: Developed in response to the perceived limitations of modernization theory, dependency theory gained prominence in the 1960s and 1970s, especially in Latin America. Scholars like Andre Gunder Frank and Samir Amin argued that underdevelopment is not a stage, but a condition imposed by the global capitalist system. According to dependency theorists, resources flow from the periphery (developing countries) to the core (developed countries), enriching the latter at the expense of the former. This theory emphasizes the structural inequalities in the global economy and the exploitative relationships between developed and developing nations, suggesting that meaningful development requires breaking these dependency ties, often through economic nationalism or regional integration.

1.2.3 World-Systems Theory: An extension of dependency theory, world-systems theory was developed by Immanuel Wallerstein. This theory divides the world into core, semi-periphery, and periphery nations. Core countries dominate the global economy and control technology, finance, and production. Periphery countries provide raw materials and cheap labor, while semi-peripheral countries occupy an intermediate position. Development, in this view, is not linear but rather shaped by a complex and unequal global economic system. The theory stresses the need for structural change and global redistribution of resources to achieve development in poorer nations.

1.2.4 Structuralist Theory: Structuralist theory also critiques the classical liberal economic models by emphasizing the internal and external constraints that limit development. Scholars like Raul Prebisch and the United Nations Economic Commission for Latin America (ECLAC) argue that developing countries face structural challenges, such as unfavorable terms of trade,

low industrial capacity, and reliance on primary exports. Structuralists advocate for state-led industrialization, import substitution, and protective economic policies to transform the internal structures of economies and promote sustainable development.

1.2.5 Neoliberal Theory: Neoliberalism gained prominence in the 1980s and 1990s through institutions like the International Monetary Fund (IMF) and the World Bank. This theory promotes free-market policies, privatization, deregulation, and open trade as the primary means for achieving national development. It holds that minimal government intervention in the economy will attract foreign investment, encourage competition, and enhance efficiency. Critics, however, argue that neoliberal policies have often led to increased inequality, weakened public services, and social unrest, particularly in developing countries.

1.2.6 Human Development Theory: Human development theory, championed by economists like Amartya Sen and Mahbub ul Haq, shifts the focus from purely economic growth to broader measures of well-being. It emphasizes improving people's capabilities, such as education, health, and standard of living. This theory argues that development should expand people's freedoms and choices, enabling them to live productive and meaningful lives. The Human Development Index (HDI) developed by the United Nations Development Programme (UNDP) reflects this perspective by incorporating life expectancy, education, and income indicators.

1.2.7 Sustainable Development Theory: Sustainable development theory integrates economic, social, and environmental dimensions of development. It became especially prominent after the 1987 Brundtland Report, which defined sustainable development as meeting “the needs of the present without compromising the ability of future generations to meet their own needs.” This theory highlights the importance of managing natural resources, reducing poverty, and promoting inclusive growth in a way that preserves the environment for future generations.

Sustainable development is now a guiding principle in global development agendas, including the United Nations' Sustainable Development Goals (SDGs).

1.2.8 Post-Colonial and Indigenous Theories: These theories critique mainstream development paradigms for marginalizing non-Western perspectives and experiences. Post-colonial theorists like Frantz Fanon and Edward Said argue that colonialism and its legacy continue to shape development outcomes in formerly colonized countries. Indigenous development theories emphasize local knowledge systems, cultural practices, and community-based approaches as foundations for authentic and sustainable development. They advocate for development models that are participatory, context-specific, and respectful of indigenous identities and traditions.

2.0 PROCESSES AND STRATEGIES OF NATIONAL DEVELOPMENT

2.1 Stages of National Development

National development typically progresses through identifiable stages, most notably outlined in **Rostow's Stages of Economic Growth**:

1. **Traditional Society:** Economic activities are based on subsistence agriculture, with limited technology and minimal productivity. Social and economic structures are static, and innovation is rare.
2. **Preconditions for Take-off:** This stage involves foundational reforms such as improved education, infrastructure development, and agricultural transformation. Investments begin to flow, preparing the country for industrial growth.

3. **Take-off:** At this stage, rapid industrialization and urbanization occur. Key sectors such as manufacturing experience significant growth, supported by increased investment and technological advancement.
4. **Drive to Maturity:** The economy diversifies beyond core industries. Innovation becomes widespread, and infrastructure and institutions become more efficient, facilitating long-term growth.
5. **Age of High Mass Consumption:** Economies reach high levels of consumer demand and wealth. The focus shifts toward services, quality of life, and social welfare systems.

2.2 Strategies of National Development under Different Economic Systems

2.2.1 Capitalist Economy (Market-Based System)

In a capitalist economy, the strategy for national development is anchored in the principles of free-market competition, private ownership, and minimal government interference. The government's role is limited to creating a conducive environment for private enterprises to thrive through policies that ensure property rights, legal protections, and infrastructure development. One major strategy is economic liberalization, which includes reducing tariffs, removing trade barriers, and encouraging open competition. Privatization of public enterprises is another key approach, aimed at improving efficiency by transferring ownership from the government to private investors. Foreign Direct Investment (FDI) is strongly encouraged, as it brings in capital, technology, and managerial expertise. Additionally, many capitalist economies adopt an export-led growth strategy, focusing on producing goods for international markets to generate revenue and drive industrialization. These strategies are designed to stimulate innovation, entrepreneurship, and efficient allocation of resources, thus accelerating national development.

2.2.2 Socialist Economy (Command System)

A socialist economy adopts a centrally planned approach to national development, where the government controls the means of production, sets economic priorities, and directs resources toward achieving equitable growth. The primary strategy here is centralized planning, which involves formulating multi-year development plans that determine production targets, resource allocation, and investment areas. Key industries such as energy, transportation, healthcare, and education are usually under public ownership, ensuring that their operations serve the collective interest rather than profit motives. Another strategic focus is income redistribution, implemented through progressive taxation, free public services, and subsidies aimed at reducing inequality. The socialist model often emphasizes import substitution, encouraging domestic production to reduce dependency on foreign goods and services. These strategies aim to ensure balanced regional development, social justice, and access to essential services for all citizens, though they may come at the expense of market efficiency and innovation.

2.2.3 Mixed Economy

The mixed economy blends features of both capitalism and socialism to create a balanced path for national development. The strategy here involves maintaining a vibrant private sector while ensuring that the state plays an active role in key economic areas. Public-private partnerships (PPPs) are commonly used to develop infrastructure and provide public services, leveraging the strengths of both sectors. Governments in mixed economies also implement strategic regulations to correct market failures, protect consumers, and ensure fair competition. Welfare programs such as education, healthcare, and housing are prioritized to promote social equity and human capital development. At the same time, private enterprise is encouraged through incentives, tax reliefs, and support for innovation. Investment in infrastructure development—roads, power, ICT, and transport—is a shared responsibility between the government and

private entities. These strategies aim to foster inclusive growth by balancing efficiency with equity, competition with regulation, and innovation with social responsibility.

2.2.4 Traditional Economy

In a traditional economy, development strategies are deeply rooted in customs, cultural practices, and communal living. The focus is not on rapid industrialization but on preserving traditional ways of life and ensuring the well-being of local communities. Strategies revolve around subsistence agriculture, where production is primarily for local consumption rather than trade or profit. Community-based resource management is a key feature, where land and natural resources are owned and managed collectively, often guided by traditional leaders or elders. Governments or development partners may introduce small-scale rural development projects such as microfinance, cooperative farming, and local craft promotion to support livelihoods without disrupting the socio-cultural fabric. Additionally, there may be efforts to integrate basic education, healthcare, and clean water access into development plans while maintaining cultural identity. These strategies prioritize sustainability, self-reliance, and social cohesion, although they may limit economic diversification and large-scale business operations.

3.0 INDICATORS AND INDICES OF NATIONAL DEVELOPMENT

3.1 Indices of National Development

Gross Domestic Product (GDP) is the total monetary value of all final goods and services produced within a country's borders over a specific period—usually quarterly or annually. It is one of the most widely used indicators to assess the size, performance, and overall health of an economy. A growing GDP typically signifies rising economic activity, higher industrial output, increased consumer spending, and overall improvement in national productivity. However,

GDP alone does not capture the full picture of a nation's welfare, as it does not reflect income distribution, environmental sustainability, or quality of life.

There are three main approaches to calculating GDP: the expenditure approach, the income approach, and the production (or output) approach.

The **expenditure approach** is the most commonly used method for calculating a country's Gross Domestic Product (GDP) by summing up all spending on final goods and services within a specific period. It is expressed as $GDP = C + I + G + (X - M)$, where C stands for household consumption on goods and services (like food, clothing, and healthcare), I is investment by businesses and households in capital goods, new housing, and inventories, G represents government spending on public services and infrastructure (excluding transfer payments), and $(X - M)$ refers to net exports, which is the value of exports (X) minus the value of imports (M).

The **income approach** calculates Gross Domestic Product (GDP) by summing all incomes earned by individuals and businesses in the process of producing goods and services within an economy over a given period. The formula is $GDP = W + R + i + P + T - S$, where W represents wages and salaries paid to workers, R is rent earned from land and property, i stands for interest earned on capital, and P is profits made by businesses. Additionally, it includes indirect taxes (T) such as sales and excise taxes, and subtracts subsidies (S) provided by the government, as these are not payments for production. This approach emphasizes the distribution of income generated from economic activity

The **production (or output) approach** calculates Gross Domestic Product (GDP) by measuring the total value of output produced by all industries in the economy, then subtracting the value of intermediate goods—those goods and services used up in the production process. The result is the value added at each stage of production. The formula can be expressed as $GDP = \text{Gross Output} - \text{Intermediate Consumption} + \text{Taxes} - \text{Subsidies}$. This method focuses on the

supply side of the economy, capturing the contribution of different sectors (like agriculture, manufacturing, and services) to total economic output. By isolating only final output and excluding double counting from intermediate inputs,

Human Development Index

The Human Development Index (HDI) is a widely recognized tool developed by the United Nations Development Programme (UNDP) to provide a broader and more inclusive measure of development than economic indicators alone. While traditional measures like Gross Domestic Product (GDP) focus solely on economic output, HDI recognizes that development is ultimately about improving people's quality of life and expanding their choices. It combines three critical dimensions of human well-being: health, measured by life expectancy at birth, which reflects the overall health conditions and medical infrastructure in a country; education, assessed through two key indicators—mean years of schooling for adults aged 25 and older (which shows the average number of years people have spent in school) and expected years of schooling for children entering the school system (which projects the total years of education a child is likely to receive); and standard of living, represented by Gross National Income (GNI) per capita, adjusted for purchasing power parity (PPP) to account for differences in cost of living between countries. The HDI assigns a score between 0 and 1, where a higher value indicates a higher level of human development. Countries are then classified into four categories: Very High, High, Medium, and Low Human Development.

Multidimensional Poverty Index

The Multidimensional Poverty Index (MPI) is a comprehensive tool developed by the Oxford Poverty and Human Development Initiative (OPHI) and the United Nations Development Programme (UNDP) to assess the multiple and overlapping forms of deprivation that individuals and households experience. Unlike traditional poverty measures that rely solely on

income or consumption levels, the MPI considers a range of non-monetary factors that directly affect people's well-being. It covers three broad dimensions: education (measured by years of schooling and school attendance), health (measured by nutrition and child mortality), and living standards (measured by access to electricity, sanitation, safe drinking water, adequate housing, and clean cooking fuel).

Each of these ten indicators within the three dimensions is weighted, and households are considered multidimensionally poor if they are deprived in at least one-third of the weighted indicators. The MPI not only reflects the incidence of poverty (the percentage of people who are poor) but also the intensity of poverty (how many deprivations the poor typically suffer). This makes it a powerful tool for identifying the most vulnerable and disadvantaged groups within a population.

3.2 Measures of National Development

1. **Economic Indicators:** These include GDP growth rate, per capita income, inflation rate, savings rate, and foreign investment. They provide insights into the economic performance and potential of a country.
2. **Social Indicators:** These indicators measure aspects such as literacy rate, school enrollment, life expectancy, access to clean water, and health outcomes. They reflect the quality of life and social progress in a country.
3. **Composite Indices:** Indices like the HDI and MPI combine various development dimensions into a single figure, offering a more holistic view of development than single-variable indicators.

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4. Environmental Indicators: Sustainable development also considers environmental data like carbon emissions, deforestation rate, and air/water quality. Environmental sustainability is vital for long-term national development.
5. Political and Institutional Indicators: These include data on political stability, rule of law, regulatory quality, and government effectiveness. Strong institutions and stable governance are essential for attracting investment and promoting development.
6. Survey and Perception-Based Measures: Measures like the World Happiness Report and Gallup Well-being Index use subjective data from citizens to assess quality of life, safety, and satisfaction with public services.

4.0 SUSTAINABLE HUMAN DEVELOPMENT

4.1 Concept of Sustainable Human Development

Sustainable Human Development refers to a development approach that not only aims at improving economic conditions but also ensures that social well-being, environmental sustainability, and human rights are advanced in a balanced and enduring manner. It emphasizes enhancing people's capabilities and choices while preserving natural and social systems for future generations.

- i. **Focus on Human-Centered Development:** Unlike traditional economic growth models that prioritize GDP and industrial output, sustainable human development places people at the center of the development process. It aims to improve health, education, and standard of living so that individuals can lead productive, creative, and fulfilling lives.
- ii. **Integration of Economic, Social, and Environmental Goals:** Sustainable human development incorporates the three pillars of sustainability—economic growth, social inclusion, and environmental protection. Development projects and policies are assessed not only on profitability but also on how they contribute to social equity and environmental preservation.
- iii. **Equity and Social Justice:** A key principle of sustainable human development is equity, both within the current generation (between rich and poor) and between present and future generations. It seeks to reduce inequalities in access to education, healthcare, employment, and resources.
- iv. **Empowerment and Participation:** Sustainable development encourages community participation and the empowerment of individuals to take part in decisions that affect their lives. This bottom-up approach fosters ownership, accountability, and the sustainability of development projects.

- v. **Respect for the Environment and Cultural Diversity:** It recognizes the importance of protecting the environment from degradation, promoting the use of renewable resources, and conserving biodiversity. It also values cultural diversity, respecting local knowledge systems and traditions as part of development strategies.
- vi. **Long-Term Perspective:** Sustainable human development is future-oriented. It aims to meet today's needs without compromising the ability of future generations to meet theirs. This requires policies that prevent resource depletion, environmental pollution, and social instability.

4.2 Role of People in National Development

People are the drivers, beneficiaries, and sustainers of national development. Their active involvement is essential at all stages—planning, implementation, and evaluation of development programs. The contributions of individuals and communities ensure that development is inclusive, relevant, and sustainable.

- i. **Labour Force and Economic Contribution:** Citizens contribute directly to national development through their roles as workers, entrepreneurs, and innovators. A productive workforce helps increase national income, reduce poverty, and attract investment. Skilled labor, in particular, is essential for industrialization and technological advancement.
- ii. **Civic Participation and Good Governance:** People play a critical role in ensuring good governance by participating in democratic processes—voting, advocacy, public consultations, and holding leaders accountable. Active civic engagement fosters transparency, accountability, and better public service delivery.

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- iii. Community Development and Voluntarism: At the grassroots level, communities initiate and sustain development through self-help projects, cooperatives, and volunteer groups. This fosters a culture of mutual support and localized problem-solving, especially in areas such as education, health, sanitation, and environmental conservation.
- iv. Education and Human Capital Formation: By pursuing education and skill development, individuals enhance their own productivity and contribute to the human capital needed for national progress. Educated citizens are better equipped to participate in the knowledge economy and support innovation and entrepreneurship.
- v. Taxation and Revenue Generation: Citizens contribute to national development by paying taxes, which provide governments with the resources needed to invest in infrastructure, health, education, and social welfare. Compliance with tax laws and financial transparency strengthen the public sector's capacity.
- vi. Promotion of Peace and Social Cohesion: People play a role in promoting peace, unity, and national integration. Development cannot take place in a conflict-ridden or politically unstable environment. Citizens who respect diversity and support peaceful coexistence help create a stable environment conducive to growth.
- vii. Environmental Stewardship: Individuals contribute to sustainable development by practicing environmentally friendly behaviors, such as recycling, tree planting, reducing waste, and conserving energy. Public support for climate policies and environmental campaigns is critical to sustainable development goals.
- viii. Cultural Preservation and Identity: People help maintain the cultural heritage and identity of a nation, which can be a source of tourism, national pride, and social

cohesion. Through music, arts, language, and traditions, they enrich national life and pass on values to future generations.

5.0 NATIONAL DEVELOPMENT PLANNING IN NIGERIA

Nigeria's approach to national development has evolved through structured planning mechanisms intended to stimulate economic growth and improve the standard of living. Formal development planning in Nigeria began in the early 1960s following independence, with a series of fixed-term National Development Plans and long-term strategic frameworks. Each of these plans was launched under different political administrations, reflecting the socio-economic priorities and challenges of their time.

5.1 First National Development Plan (1962–1968) – Prime Minister Abubakar Tafawa Balewa

The First National Development Plan, introduced in 1962 under the administration of Prime Minister Abubakar Tafawa Balewa, was Nigeria's initial formal attempt at economic planning. The plan focused primarily on infrastructure development and agriculture. Its objectives were to lay the foundation for long-term economic growth through heavy investment in transportation (roads, ports, and railways), power generation, and agricultural productivity. The plan also emphasized manpower development to support future industrial and administrative needs. However, the plan suffered from poor coordination between the federal and regional governments, and political tensions impeded its full realization.

5.2 Second National Development Plan (1970–1974) – General Yakubu Gowon

After the Nigerian Civil War (1967–1970), the Second National Development Plan was introduced in 1970 under the military government of General Yakubu Gowon. The plan centered around the post-war policy of reconciliation, rehabilitation, and reconstruction (the

“3Rs”). Its goals included the rebuilding of war-damaged infrastructure, promoting balanced development among Nigeria's regions, and increasing Nigerian participation in the economy. This plan marked a shift toward nationalism and greater public sector involvement in industry and commerce. Despite strong political support, challenges such as ethnic divisions, over-centralization, and inefficient resource allocation affected its implementation.

5.3 Third National Development Plan (1975–1980) – General Murtala Mohammed / General Olusegun Obasanjo

The Third National Development Plan, launched in 1975 during the regime of General Murtala Mohammed and later implemented by General Olusegun Obasanjo, was the most ambitious of all Nigeria's development plans. Buoyed by oil revenue windfalls, the plan aimed for rapid industrialization, diversification of the economy, and technological advancement. With a budget exceeding ₦43 billion, it targeted massive investments in heavy industries such as steel, refineries, and petrochemicals. The plan also prioritized the expansion of education and health services. However, the overambitious nature of the plan, combined with weak institutional capacity and widespread corruption, led to underperformance.

5.4 Fourth National Development Plan (1981–1985) – President Shehu Shagari

The Fourth National Development Plan was introduced in 1981 under the civilian administration of President Shehu Shagari during Nigeria's Second Republic. The plan sought to correct the failures of previous plans by promoting self-reliance, income redistribution, and rural development. It placed renewed emphasis on agriculture, small and medium-scale enterprises, and human capital development. Unfortunately, this period coincided with a sharp decline in global oil prices, which severely affected national revenue. Rising inflation, growing debt, and poor fiscal management plagued the implementation of the plan, leading to economic instability and the eventual collapse of the civilian government in 1983.

5.5 Rolling Plans (1986–1998) – General Ibrahim Babangida and Successors

After the failure of the Fourth National Development Plan and due to changing economic realities, Nigeria abandoned fixed-term development plans and adopted Rolling Plans beginning in 1986. These were part of the broader Structural Adjustment Programme (SAP) introduced by General Ibrahim Babangida in collaboration with the International Monetary Fund (IMF) and the World Bank. Unlike earlier fixed-term plans, Rolling Plans were medium-term frameworks (usually three years) that were reviewed and adjusted annually based on changing economic circumstances. The Rolling Plans aimed to stabilize the economy, liberalize trade and exchange rates, promote privatization of state-owned enterprises, and reduce government involvement in direct economic production. While these plans introduced market-oriented reforms and encouraged private sector participation, they were widely criticized for worsening poverty and unemployment, increasing national debt, devaluing the naira, and triggering social unrest due to subsidy removals and austerity measures.

5.6 National Economic Empowerment and Development Strategy

The National Economic Empowerment and Development Strategy (NEEDS) was Nigeria's home-grown medium-term development plan launched in 2004 during President Olusegun Obasanjo's administration. It aimed to address the country's long-standing issues of poverty, unemployment, poor infrastructure, and weak institutions. NEEDS was designed in response to the failure of past development plans and was aligned with the broader global goals such as the Millennium Development Goals (MDGs).

It emphasized economic reform, institutional restructuring, and social development, while promoting transparency and accountability in governance. The strategy focused on wealth creation through private sector growth and non-oil exports, employment generation via skills and youth empowerment, poverty reduction through improved access to essential services, and

value reorientation to foster discipline, accountability, and patriotism among citizens and public officials.

NEEDS also called for a reduction in the size and cost of government, civil service reform, privatization of state-owned enterprises, and anti-corruption efforts. It was complemented at the state and local government levels by SEEDS (State Economic Empowerment and Development Strategy) and LEEDS (Local Economic Empowerment and Development Strategy), respectively. Although NEEDS achieved some progress in economic stabilization and reforms, challenges such as poor implementation, weak institutional capacity, and political resistance hindered its full realization.

5.7 Vision 2010

Vision 2010 was a long-term strategic plan initiated by the Nigerian government in 1996 under the military regime of General Sani Abacha. It aimed to transform Nigeria into a developed and economically prosperous nation by the year 2010. The initiative was designed in response to the economic, political, and social crises that plagued the country throughout the 1980s and early 1990s, including falling oil revenues, widespread poverty, and institutional decay. The Vision 2010 Committee, comprising public and private sector leaders, professionals, and civil society representatives, was tasked with crafting a comprehensive development blueprint.

The main objectives of Vision 2010 included achieving political stability, economic diversification beyond oil, poverty reduction, infrastructural development, enhanced education and health systems, good governance, and private sector-led growth. Key strategies proposed involved liberalizing the economy, encouraging foreign investment, improving transparency and accountability in governance, and strengthening institutions. Despite the ambitious goals and inclusive design of Vision 2010, its implementation was weak, mainly due to political instability, lack of continuity in governance, and poor policy execution. Nonetheless, Vision

2010 served as a foundational document that influenced subsequent national development plans like the National Economic Empowerment and Development Strategy.

5.8 Economic Recovery and Growth Plan (2017-2020) - President Muhammadu Buhari

The Economic Recovery and Growth Plan (ERGP) was a medium-term economic plan launched by the Federal Government of Nigeria in 2017 under President Muhammadu Buhari's administration. It was developed in response to Nigeria's economic recession in 2016, which was caused by declining oil revenues, macroeconomic instability, and structural weaknesses. The ERGP covered the period 2017–2020 and was coordinated by the Ministry of Budget and National Planning. Its main objective was to restore economic growth, diversify the economy, and lay the foundation for sustained development.

The ERGP was anchored on three strategic objectives: restoring growth by stabilizing the macroeconomic environment and boosting key sectors, investing in people through improved healthcare, education, and social welfare, and building a globally competitive economy by fostering private sector investment, enhancing ease of doing business, and promoting digital-led growth.

Key initiatives under the ERGP included the power sector reform, agricultural transformation, investment in transportation infrastructure, job creation, and support for Micro, Small, and Medium Enterprises (MSMEs). The plan also aimed to reduce dependence on oil by increasing revenue from non-oil sources and reducing imports through local production.

5.9 Nigeria Vision 20:2020 (2009–2020) – President Umaru Musa Yar'Adua

Launched in 2009 under President Umaru Musa Yar'Adua, Vision 20:2020 was a long-term economic transformation blueprint aimed at positioning Nigeria among the top 20 economies in the world by the year 2020. The vision was anchored on four main pillars: human capital

development, infrastructure expansion, improved governance, and a globally competitive economy. Key sectors targeted included power, agriculture, transportation, and manufacturing. The plan also emphasized job creation, poverty alleviation, and private sector-led growth. Although Vision 20:2020 stimulated some infrastructural and policy reforms, the failure to meet its core target was due to challenges such as policy inconsistency, weak institutions, corruption, insecurity, and overdependence on oil.

5.10 Nigeria Agenda 2050 (2023–2050) – President Muhammadu Buhari

Nigeria Agenda 2050 is the country's most recent long-term development framework, formally launched in 2023 during the administration of President Muhammadu Buhari. The vision of this plan is to transform Nigeria into an upper-middle-income country with a projected GDP per capita of \$33,000 by the year 2050. Agenda 2050 builds on the foundations of Vision 20:2020 and aims to address its shortcomings by emphasizing inclusive growth, sustainability, digital transformation, good governance, and massive job creation. It outlines a roadmap for poverty reduction, environmental protection, and human capital development. Implementation is to be executed through a series of five-year Medium-Term National Development Plans (MTNDPs). The success of this agenda depends on political will, institutional reforms, and coordinated efforts across all levels of government and the private sector.

6.0 PROBLEMS OF NIGERIAN'S NATIONAL DEVELOPMENT

Nigeria, despite being richly endowed with human and natural resources, continues to face persistent challenges in achieving sustainable national development. These problems cut across economic, social, political, and institutional dimensions. Understanding these challenges is crucial to designing effective policies and implementing development strategies.

i. ***Corruption and Poor Governance:*** One of the most critical obstacles to national development in Nigeria is **corruption**, which has permeated all levels of government and public life. Funds meant for infrastructure, healthcare, education, and poverty alleviation are often diverted for personal gain.

Political Instability and Insecurity: Frequent political transitions, coups (especially during the military era), and electoral violence have disrupted long-term development planning. More recently, the rise in insecurity, including terrorism (Boko Haram), banditry, kidnapping, and farmer-herder conflicts, has created an unsafe environment for investment and economic activities.

3. Overdependence on Oil: Nigeria's economy is heavily dependent on crude oil, which accounts for over 80% of foreign exchange earnings. This mono-economy structure makes the country vulnerable to fluctuations in global oil prices. Declines in oil revenue often result in budget deficits, cuts in public spending, and delays in project implementation.

4. Poor Infrastructure: Despite decades of planning, basic infrastructure such as roads, electricity, water supply, and transportation remain grossly inadequate. This discourages private investment, increases production costs, and limits access to essential services. The power sector, in particular, is plagued with inefficiency, affecting industrial and technological development.

5. Unemployment and Underemployment: High levels of youth unemployment and underemployment remain a critical issue. Despite being Africa's largest economy by GDP, job creation has not kept pace with population growth. The mismatch between educational output and labor market demand also contributes to graduate unemployment, leading to frustration, poverty, and in some cases, youth restiveness.

6. Low Human Capital Development: Poor quality education, outdated curricula, dilapidated school infrastructure, and limited access to healthcare services hinder national productivity. Additionally, frequent strikes in the education and health sectors disrupt service delivery and long-term planning.

7. Ethnic and Religious Tensions: Nigeria's multi-ethnic and multi-religious composition, while a potential strength, often leads to ethno-religious conflicts and identity politics. These tensions frequently result in communal violence, hinder national unity, and influence policy decisions based on sectional interests rather than national priorities.

8. Poor Data Management and Planning: Effective development planning requires accurate and up-to-date data, yet Nigeria struggles with weak data collection, analysis, and dissemination systems. This leads to poor policy design and ineffective targeting of development programs. Development plans are often based on outdated or unreliable statistics, reducing their effectiveness.

7.0 ROLE OF BUSINESS IN NATION BUILDING

The role of businesses in nation-building extends to fostering unity, enhancing social stability, and promoting civic responsibility. Businesses bring together individuals from diverse ethnic,

religious, and social backgrounds to work toward common objectives. This multicultural integration within the workplace promotes national cohesion and mutual respect. Additionally, by providing employment and reducing economic inequality, businesses contribute to peace and stability, which are essential components of nation-building. Through investments in education, training, and community projects, businesses also empower citizens and promote human capital development. Their participation in national discourse, support for democratic governance, and promotion of rule of law help strengthen institutions and build a resilient society.

7.1 Corporate Social Responsibilities

Corporate Social Responsibility (CSR) encompasses both economic and non-economic contributions of businesses to society. Economically, businesses generate employment, produce goods and services, pay taxes, invest in capital formation, and drive exports. These outputs are crucial for economic development and poverty reduction. Non-economic contributions, on the other hand, reflect the ethical, environmental, and social responsibilities of businesses. These include environmental sustainability initiatives, charitable donations, support for education and healthcare, and the promotion of ethical labor practices. In Nigeria, many businesses engage in community development by building schools, hospitals, and providing scholarships. For example, oil companies in the Niger Delta region have been involved in community development projects aimed at addressing local grievances. Businesses that practice responsible CSR enhance their reputation, build public trust, and contribute meaningfully to national development.